

**AI & POLICE PRACTICE: A CRITICAL COMPARATIVE
ANALYSIS OF RUSSIAN & BRITISH POLICING IN VIEW OF
RECENT AI DEVELOPMENTS**

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Chapter 1: Introduction

1.1 Background to the Study

AI has become more and more of a part of the modern police, transforming the way that police organizations identify crime, address risk and resource distribution. Facial recognition, predictive policing systems, automated data analysis, biometric databases, risk assessment tools and surveillance platforms are now utilized to help back both reactive and preventative policing. Such developments have been frequently explained through the lenses of efficiency, speed and better crime prevention, especially where police forces need to process heavy amounts of information, including data available in CCTV, digital records, social media, mobile gadgets and intelligence databases.

Nevertheless, the possibility of AI making an even greater impact on policing also sparks significant apprehensions. Computational technology can reinstate the presence of prevailing biases within police data, heighten the level of surveillance toward already over-policed areas and undermine human accountability when police decisions seemingly appear objectively determined through algorithms. Identifying faces and analytics predictive are particularly controversial in that they may influence privacy, the freedom of movement and the presumption of innocence. Consequently, AI in policing cannot be seen solely through the prism of technological advancement, but as a controversial phenomenon that has to be considered through the lenses of critical legal, ethical and comparative analysis.

1.2 Research Problem

The main issue lies in the fact that AI is being integrated into policing at a faster rate than law, ethical, and operational safeguards can evolve to counter it. Ideally, automated analytics, facial recognition and predictive systems can assist police officers in processing high amounts of data, recognize suspects faster and use the resources more efficiently. But the efficiency is neutral. AI systems utilize historical police records, and these records might already represent an over-policing, racial profiling or political domination trend. When such systems come into play and alarm the decision of both surveillance and deployment, they might kindle inequity and pass as impartial (Nalutsyshyn, Nalutsyshyn and Golovchak, 2025). Another issue is one of accountability: when an algorithm is used in a policing decision, it is often unclear who is accountable; be it officers, police managers, software providers or the state.

1.3 Rationale for Comparing Russia and Britain

A good comparison of Russia and Britain can be made because they are the land of opposing policing traditions, governing institutions, and the culture of accountability. A more decentralised model of policing pertains to Britain, where territorial forces are legally, politically and administratively put to the test. Russian policing, in comparison, is more centralised with greater connections between policing and state security and executive powers. The contrast is crucial when considering AI since technologies like predictive analytics and surveillance systems, facial recognition, etc., do not act neutrally; their effect relies on the legal and institutional context in which the technology is employed. The comparison between the two countries thus enables the study to determine whether AI reinforce the principle of efficiency and the control of crime, or it will increase surveillance, undermine transparency and diminish societal accountability.

1.4 Research Aim

The research critically evaluates how Russian and British policing documents frame the use of artificial intelligence in contemporary police practice, with particular attention to facial recognition, predictive policing, biometric surveillance and automated data analysis. It aims to examine whether these technologies are presented mainly as tools of efficiency, crime prevention and national security, or whether sufficient attention is given to legal safeguards, privacy, human rights, bias and accountability. By comparing official policy, legal and guidance documents from both jurisdictions, the study seeks to identify measurable differences in AI governance, police discretion and institutional transparency within two contrasting policing systems.

1.5 Research Objectives

The five objectives of this study are recognition: to delineate the most popular themes associated with AI in its Russian and British policing in their country-wide policies; analysis:

- To analyze the most relevant AI-related themes in Russian and British policymaking documents in the country-wide policy, and coverage: to cover the most pertinent themes related to AI within Russian and British policymaking texts in the country-wide policy.
- To analyse the frame within each jurisdiction of AI as either a tool of operational policing or a governance risk.
- To juxtapose the legal and policy data protection and oversight attached to AI use, namely, transparency, proportionality, human oversight and data protection.

- To investigate the importance of official documents in meaningfully recognizing such risks as bias, privacy encroachment and lack of accountability.
- To evaluate what system presents the most formidable structure of democratically controlling AI-driven policing.

1.6 Research Questions

In this study, three critically oriented research questions are presented:

- In what ways does the role of AI in modern policing practice build policy, legal and guidance documents in Russian and British police-related policy?
- How well do these documents critically listen to the safeguard criteria such as legality, transparency, human oversight, accountability, privacy and proportionality?
- What are the main similarities and differences between Russian and British approaches to AI policing, in particular, in the context of surveillance, facial recognition, predictive analytics and state security?

These questions will allow the study to move beyond merely describing and critically consider whether AI is being framed more as an efficiency tool, a security mechanism or a rights-sensitive policing development.

1.7 Dissertation structure

In this dissertation, seven chapters are provided. In Chapter One, the research problem, aims and questions are introduced. Chapter Two critically reviews scholarly discussions on AI policing and surveillance, predictive policing and accountability. Chapter Three describes the desk-based quantitative design, systematic sampling and content analysis approach. Chapters Four and Five discuss Russian and British AI-police themes independently of each other. Chapter Six compares the two jurisdictions critically on the issues of legality, transparency and safeguards. In Chapter Seven, the conclusion is made by assessing the findings, limitations, and future research directions.

Chapter 2: Literature Review

2.1 Introduction

This chapter critically examines the current academic literature on the topics of artificial intelligence, policing, surveillance and accountability. It explores how AI has transformed police practice into reactive investigation to adapt police practice to an automated risk assessment, biometric monitoring, and automated risk analysis. Nonetheless, the literature does not outline AI policing as being purely progressive. Although AI can be useful in terms of speed, resource allocation and detection of crime, the scholars also point out serious issues regarding privacy, resource allocation and crime detection. Thus, this survey considers not only the practical advantages but also the dangers of democracy.

2.2 AI and modern police practice

Pattern detection, facial recognition, crime mapping, risk scoring and automated database searches are some of these applications of AI that are now playing an increasingly central role in modern police practice. AI systems were used to process large amounts of information comprising CCTV, body-worn cameras, custody records, crime reports, social media, ANPR systems and intelligence databases. Theoretically, it enables police to determine the relationships between individuals, sites, vehicles and incidents at a faster rate compared to previous manual analysis. As an illustration, facial recognition can be used to compare images to watchlists, and predictive mapping tools can be used to highlight areas where certain offences might be more likely to occur.

Nevertheless, the empirical usefulness of AI in the policing process is still debatable. Even though these systems are commonly introduced as effective and objective, they are seriously reliant on the quality of police data on history. Whether the prior policing practices were unfair or one-sided, or some other form of bias, it is possible that the AI creates the same patterns without necessarily correcting the history of the discussed community. Risk scoring can also transform the complicated human behaviour into simplified categories of numbers that create the risk of individuals or areas being considered as suspicious even before an offence could occur. Thus, AI is not just a tool of impersonal policing that should not be legally concerned, but it is a decision-support system that should be approachable and ethical, and, therefore, must be subject to legal safeguards, transparency, and human-friendly accountability.

2.3 Predictive Policing and Algorithmic Decision-Making

Predictive policing is the term used to describe the application of data analytics, machine learning and algorithmic systems to predict the potential occurrence of crime, the persons who could be at risk of committing a crime or the individuals who might become the subject of criminal activity. Theoretically, this enables the police organisations to allocate resources more effectively, detect crime patterns sooner and enable quicker operations decision-making. The success of predictive policing, however, relies on the quality, relevance and fairness of such information used in training and operating such systems.

One issue is that police information is not an objective account of crime. It is commonly an account of prior police action. Geographic areas that have in the past been over-policed may seem to experience higher crime levels simply because there are more officers deployed there, more stops are being conducted, and more incidents are being reported (Korol and Korol, 2025). Once this data is entered into predictive systems, the algorithm may recreate and reinforce current patterns in policing, instead of acting objectively to determine future crime risk. This forms the feedback loop whereby specific communities are permanently considered to be at a high risk.

Algorithms also create an issue of accuracy when it comes to algorithmic decision-making. False positives, where false risks are identified, and false negatives, where true risks are overlooked, are possible in predictive systems. In policing, false positives may prove very costly, like unnecessary surveillance, unnecessary stop and search, reputational damage and disproportionate intervention. This issue becomes even worse when the officers interpret algorithm-based results as objective facts and not as probabilistic guesses.

2.4 Facial recognition and biometric surveillance

Biometric surveillance and facial recognition have now taken up the central role of how AI can transform police practice. Live facial recognition permits police to scan individuals in open environments and match their facial images to a watchlist of wanted subjects, suspects, missing persons or persons that are considered to be at risk. Practically, it might help to identify things faster, and improve the efficiency of the police, particularly at busy events, transportation hubs or probable troublesome areas. But, it is highly dependent upon the quality of the watchlist, the accuracy of the algorithm and the protections provided around police use.

One important issue is that biometric surveillance is reshaping the character of the public space. People can be scanned even in cases where they are not suspected of having committed an

offence. This introduces a transformation in which, instead of focusing on particular policing, people monitoring, in general, is introduced. It is not just a matter of whether the technology works or not, but rather whether the technology is proportional to scan thousands of innocent individuals in order to target a small number of them. An example can be given of a 0.1% false positive rate, which would falsely indicate 10 individuals in a population of 10,000. These mistakes can result in unnecessary stops, humiliation, suspicion and unequal treatment.

Especially critical are those systems that are less precise with regard to the ethnicity, gender or age group. This forms issues concerning discrimination and a lack of trust in the community. Facial recognition in many cases is being projected as objective, but the technology rests on human decisions regarding the data, watchlists, threshold and sites of deployment. Hence, the application in policing cannot be handled like it is a loan, a neutral technical instrument. It must be subjected to stringent legal regulations, transparency, independent regulation and clear boundaries on when biometric surveillance is warranted.

2.5 Risks: Bias, Discrimination and Accountability

Applying AI to police work poses great dangers since police algorithms can hardly be neutral. They tend to be trained on the existing police information, which includes arrest records, crime reports, stop-and-search patterns, custody data and intelligence files. These data sets could be the result of inequality in policing practice in the past. Due to this, an AI system can recreate previous patterns of over-policing instead of offering an objective evaluation of the risk of crime. This is particularly problematic in areas that are characterised by historically higher contact with police by particular groups of people comprising communities, neighbourhoods or ethnic groups. It can also cause the repetition of the police attention to be interpreted as the increased threat of crime, and the process leads to the police focusing on the same area again.

The indirect variables can also be used to discriminate. Where there are no direct considerations of a previously mentioned protection characteristic like race, ethnicity or nationality, other considerations like the postcode, migration status, language, previous police contact or association networks may work as proxies.

Another issue is accountability. The decision-making process by police involving a risk score, an alert or a match can lessen the level of transparency because police, suspects, and courts might not have a clear understanding of how a risk score, an alert or a match was generated. This can be further exacerbated by commercial secrets of the providers of the private technologies, who may not want to reveal the secrets of the way systems are run (Zhaltyrbayeva

et al., 2025). This leaves a lapse in accountability: the police can take shelter in the system, but the company itself only mentions that it does not provide any technical support.

The AI does not eliminate police discretion: it transforms it. The officers can consider the results of the algorithm as objective evidence, although they themselves are just probabilistic proposals. This may undermine professional judgement and promote automation bias.

2.6 Legal and human rights debates

The legal and human rights controversies that surround AI in policing are viewed through the prism of a conflict between national security and citizens by rights. AI systems might help assist police forces to locate suspects, forecast crime trends and handle massive amounts of data, yet it also adds to the capacity of the state to monitor individuals. This raises serious issues with privacy when facial recognition, biometric databases and predictive analytics are applied in a public setting without the direct permission of the people to do so.

The biggest challenge is data protection since AI policing requires the collection, storage and processing of personal information. Whether or not data is legally obtained is merely part of whether it is accurate, relevant and fairly used. False or subjective information can result in creating false risk assessments, and they can consequently affect the police's decision-making. This casts doubt on whether people are being evaluated based on solid facts or algorithms.

The concept of necessity and proportionality also plays an important role. The use of AI by policing could be legally justified in situations where it focuses on serious crime or evident threats, but would be questioned in other cases where operational use of AI is applied to common public activity. A tool can be powerful, but power is not a legal or ethical consideration.

2.7 Comparative policing: Russia and Britain

The comparison of Russia and Britain is valuable as it reveals a way in which AI policing is formed, not only by the technology but also by the legal culture, system of state power and accountability. Britain is a rights-based system in which the use of AI, such as facial recognition and data analytics, by police is anticipated to pass legality, necessity, proportionality, and plasticity tests. This, however, does not eliminate risk, and British policing continues to come under criticism over what can be termed as surveillance creep, racial bias, lax transparency and unequal local police practice. Russia provides an opposite example, as the development of AI is better related to the state security, the centralised control and

management of the state order. This can lead to a quicker implementation of the surveillance technologies, yet it also generates a more serious question concerning the issue of civil liberties, the independent inspection and redressing of the citizens.

2.8 Literature gap

The current body of knowledge on AI and policing is strongly biased towards Western jurisdictions, specifically the United Kingdom, the United States and the European Union. Although these studies critically review predictive policing, facial recognition, bias and accountability, they rarely look at liberal-democratic and more security-centred policing systems through official policy, legal and guidance documents. Consequently, the Russian policing has been under-analysed directly vis-à-vis Britain. This leaves a distinct vacuum in which a quantitative document-based study that evaluates the ways in which the two states frame AI, safeguards, and police power can be conducted.

Chapter 3: Methodology

3.1 Introduction

This chapter describes the methodological design that has been chosen to study AI and police practice in the UK and Russia. The study is based on a desk-based quantitative content analysis of selected legal, policy and policing documents that enable the key themes to be counted, compared, and critically interpreted. The last sample has 10 documents: 8 UK documents and 2 Russian documents. This imbalance is also methodologically important in that it provides the UK analysis with a greater documentary foundation and the Russian analysis with a greater indicative than conclusive basis. The chapter hence describes the methodology of the research, data collection, sampling method, data coding scheme, reliability, ethical considerations and constraints.

3.2 Research philosophy and approach

The research methodology taken in this study is a post-positive research methodology as it incorporates quantifiable coding with critical analysis. The existence of a term like transparency, accountability, etc. would be treated and regarded as objective evidence of protection under the purely positivist approach. This would be too narrow, though, to serve as protection in legal and policy texts, where protection can be formally given and then, in practice, virtually non-existent. The analysis thus tabulates the themes based on binary coding but also evaluates the significance of the themes in the context. The UK documents in the uploaded sample scored highly on legal safeguards, accountability and human rights, both of which were reported in 8 out of 8 documents, as well as transparency, which was reported in 6 out of 8 documents. In 2/2 documents, the Russian documents indicated legal guarantees and human rights, but included no transparency and human oversight.

3.3 Research Design: Desk-Based Quantitative Study

This research undertaking takes a desk-based quantitative research design since it does not involve collecting primary data in the form of interviews, surveys or fieldwork. The study is thus personalized on the official and legally authoritative resources, including statutes, policy strategies, police operation instructions, surveillance instructions and case law (Striltsiv and Fedorenko, 2022). This design is suitable as the proposed study investigates the formal representations of AI policing in state and legal texts, but not how the experiences of individual officers or even citizens concerning AI policing can be personally embodied.

The quantitative component is generated by using the coding framework wherein each record is evaluated against the quantifiable labels, such as facial recognition, biometrics, legal safeguards, risks, human oversight, transparency, accountability and human rights. The last document sample would be composed of 10 documents, including eight UK documents and two Russian documents. The UK sample consists of the Data Protection Act 2018, the Human Rights Act 1998, the Equality Act 2010, the Protection of Freedoms Act 2012, the Surveillance Camera Code of Practice, the MPS Overt LFR Policy, Bridges and the UK National AI Strategy. The Russian sample consists of the Russian Information Security Doctrine and Glukhin v Russia. Importantly, the sample is disproportional, thus results represent a form of structured comparative signifier and not a complete measure in the form of a national measure.

3.4 Data Sources

The research employed four types of documentary information, which are legal statutes, police/surveillance guidance, AI or security strategy documents, and case law. The category of legal statutes fell under the category of the Data Protection Act 2018, Human Rights Act 1998, Equality Act 2010 and Protection of Freedoms Act 2012. These documents gave a legal foundation for the analysis of privacy, equality, biometric control, surveillance and data processing by the police. The category of the police and surveillance guidance included the MPS Overt Live Facial Recognition Policy and the Surveillance Camera Code of Practice, which provided greater operational specifics regarding the deployment, proportionality, watchlists, transparency and governance. The strategy category consisted of the UK National AI Strategy and the Russian Information Security Doctrine and allowed the study to compare broader national approaches to AI, security and digital governance.

3.5 Sampling Method: Systematic Document Sampling

The design utilized systematic document sampling strategy based on relevance, authority and comparability. The sample was not selected among participants, interviews or field visits, but from official, legally significant documents related to AI, policing, surveillance, biometrics, facial recognition, serving as a means of public security and data governance. The sampling basis initially came up with the two areas which are being compared: Britain/the UK and Russia. This subsequently grouped the possible material into five categories of documents: legislation, government policy, police guidance, case law and security strategy.

The last dataset was made up of 10 documents, among which are 8 UK documents and 2 Russian documents. The UK sample was comprised of legislation on data protection, data on

human rights, equality, biometric regulation and surveillance, and information on national artificial intelligence strategy, Metropolitan Police live facial recognition policy and the Bridges case.

The sampling rationale was systematic due to the fact that every document needed to comply with explicit characteristics of relevance. Only when it addressed at least one of the following was a document included: AI, facial recognition, biometrics, police use of data, surveillance, legal safeguards, human rights, accountability/national security. The selected documents were then coded according to the same coding structure in order to compare frequencies and percentages of various jurisdictions.

The sample, however, is to be handled with caution. The asymmetric balance is that the results can not purport to represent the entire AI-policing paradigm in each country on equal measure. Rather, the sample gives a document-based, indicative comparison. This is further robust to UK legal and policy protection, but less robust to Russia since only two Russian documents were available to be analysed. Thus, one should take the results as formalized support on the example of a few documents and not a national examination.

3.6 Inclusion and Exclusion Criteria

Records were added only when official, legally authoritative or more directly related to AI-related policing. The last sample included 10 documents; eight of them were in the UK, and two of them were in Russia. Some of the provided materials included statutes, court rulings, police policy reports, government AI or security policies, and surveillance or biometric policies. These sources worked well as they demonstrate how AI, facial recognition, biometrics, use of police data, surveillance, human rights, proportionality, equality, transparency, accountability and national security are formally framed.

News articles, blogs, opinion pieces, commercial AI materials and documents not related to policing or surveillance were left out. This made it more reliable by not having speculative or unauthoritative remarks. The exclusion of media and civil-society material also limits the analysis, since official reportages may minimize operational issues or criticisms by the broader society. Consequently, the criteria enhanced the legal validity but limited the broader understanding of AI-policing practice within the wider social context.

3.7 Data Analysis Method: Quantitative Content Analysis

A quantitative content analysis was employed in this study to explore the presentation of AI, policing, surveillance and legal safeguards in the selected British and Russian documents. This approach was suitable since the study was desk-based and used official legal, policy, police and judicial documents as opposed to interviews and responses received during surveys. All the documents were checked, with the help of a standard set of codes, permitting the repetition of the same themes to be transferred into numerical data.

A binary coding system was used, and 1 expressed the presence and 0 expressed the absence of a theme. This enabled the research to quantify and match the rate of themes in the two jurisdictions. Indicatively, the analysis revealed that legal protection was observed in all documents in both the UK and Russia in 8/8 documents, and 2/2 document cases, respectively. Likewise, accountability was found in 8/8 UK documents and 2/2 Russian documents, and human rights in 8/8 UK documents and 2/2 Russian documents.

Nonetheless, numerical findings needed a critical approach. The existence of a theme did not necessarily imply that the protection was high or that it was practical. An example is where both UK and Russian documents mentioned law safeguards, the UK documents were more inclined to give more detailed procedures and safeguards, such as proportionality, data privacy, equality obligations, transparency and operational controls (Herasymenko et al., 2025). In comparison, the Russian sources put more stress on state security, order and order, information control and the risks of face recognition in protest policing. Other significant differences also emerged in the coding. Transparency emerged in 6/8 and 5/8 UK and Russian documents, respectively, whereas human oversight occurred in 5/8 and 6/8 UK and Russian documents, respectively.

3.8 Coding framework

The coding framework was developed in such a way that it is able to capture both the presence of technology and also the quality of the governance surrounding AI policing in the ten documents analysed: eight UK and two Russian. It coded the presence of AI, facial recognition, biometrics, predictive policing, data analytics/AI strategy, policing-security purpose, legal safeguards, risks, human oversight, transparency, accountability, human rights and national security framing. The findings indicate that legal control, accountability and human rights were present in both jurisdictions, which may have been one of the reasons that constitutional documents incorporated these features and rules. This does not, however, imply that safeguards

are equally strong. Human oversight was found only in readings of 5/10, and transparency was found in 6/10, with transparency being weaker. The evidence describing facial recognition was presented in 3/10 documents, whereas the evidence of predictive policing was mentioned in 0/10. The framework is therefore used to gauge frequency as well as the distance between the formalized regulation and the actual protection.

3.9 Reliability and Validity

The reliability was also enhanced using the fixed codebook, binary coding rules and a regular Excel coding sheet. All the documents have been graded based on the same categories, and these include the presence of AI, facial recognition, biometrics, legal protection, risks, human control, transparency, accountability and human rights. This was useful in diminishing inconsistency because by the same 1/0 logic of coding, the same was applied to all 10 documents, irrespective of country. Nonetheless, the level of reliability is very low since certain types had to be interpreted. As an example, one document may discuss accountability and offer some feeble practical implementation.

The validity was ensured by applying official and authoritative resources instead of the media coverage or other sources of opinion. There were 8 documents in the UK sample and just 2 in the Russian sample. This brings about Imbalance. UK documents were more operationally detailed, with 75% transparency coded and 62.5% human oversight coded, whilst Russia scored zero in both. Consequently, the comparison is insightful, though rather indicative than entirely representative.

3.10 Ethical considerations

In this study, the exposure to ethical risk is limited as it involves the use of only publicly available legal, policy and guidance documents with no interviews, surveys, and personal data collection. Nevertheless, the ethical responsibility is of much importance as the analysis is concerned with policing, biometric surveillance and human rights. The data is not even, as there are eight UK documents and two Russian documents; therefore, it is the responsibility of the researcher to avoid presenting Russia-UK comparisons as being equal (Montasari, 2024). Discoveries must be placed on a very careful footing, fairly and without elaborating based on existing scattered evidence, state practice.

3.11 Limitations

There are significant limitations of the study. The dataset is not balanced, and there are a total of 10 documents in the dataset: 8 of these are UK documents, and only 2 are Russian documents. This undermines direct national comparison, in particular, due to the less available Russian police-operational material. There are also language and translation problems that can also influence the interpretation of the Russian legal/security terms. Although binary coding revealed rather distinct patterns (such as 75% UK transparency vs. 0% in a Russian sample), it only measures theme presence, but not the actual effectiveness of safeguards.

Chapter 4: Russian Policing and AI Themes

4.1 Introduction

This chapter is a critical analysis of the Russian document sample, which is the Information Security Doctrine of the Russian Federation and *Glukhin v Russia*. The size of the dataset is relatively smaller in comparison with the UK sample, taking 2 Russian documents as compared with 8 UK documents. Nevertheless, the Russian materials still are of analytical interest due to their revelation of high levels of national-security framing, facial-recognition concerns, lack of transparency, and severe human-rights implications of the Russian policing and surveillance practice.

4.2 Overview of Russian AI-policing context

The situation of AI-policing in Russia, as represented by the documents analysed are dominated by the language of security and not by the language of service-delivery. Both of the Russian documents were coded as having a policing/security purpose and national security framing, but neither had noticeable transparency or human oversight instruments. This implies that domestic policies on information technology that govern Russia demonstrate information technology as a tool that safeguards the status of sovereignty, national order and stability. The Information Security Doctrine considers the information system, communication network and digital infrastructure forming a part of the national-security architecture and also includes reference to the constitutional rights and information freedoms. Nevertheless, such rights seem to be in the shadow of state protection and management of the threats. This broader security logic is practically relevant in *Glukhin v Russia*, where, under the guise of peaceful protest, facial recognition was used to identify, locate and arrest a peaceful protester.

4.3 Main AI Technologies Identified

The primary AI-related technology that the Russian sample reveals is facial recognition, as opposed to predictive policing or larger-scale automated decision-making. The coding analysis reveals that facial recognition, biometric processing and AI-linked surveillance were mentioned in 1 out of 2 Russian documents, and predictive policing appeared in 0 out of 2 Russian documents. This hints at the idea that, based on the manifestations of the Russian evidence available, the practice of AI-policing is best discerned through the use of surveillance infrastructure and biometric identification (Sholeh and Iswanti, 2024). The main document is the case of *Glukhin v Russia* because it demonstrates how CCTV and facial recognition were supposedly used to identify, locate and arrest a peaceful solo protester. The case also

documents how the surveillance system of Moscow is expanding fast, including approximately 175,000 CCTV cameras with live facial recognition as of September 2020. The Russian Information Security Doctrine, in its turn, does not specifically cover police AI, although it promotes a broader security-oriented framework that focuses on information systems, state protection and digital governance.

4.4 Legal and policy safeguards

According to the Russian documents, within the system of legal protection, there are unevenly distributed and poorly operationalised legal protections. The coding analysis showed that the legal safeguards, accountability and human rights were mentioned in 2/2 Russian documents, and so the apparent score was 100%. This figure is, however, misleading unless the interpretation is done critically. The Frames The Information Security Doctrine frames rights in a broader state-security logic, whereas Glukhin demonstrates that formal law was not used to stop the use of intrusive facial recognition to identify, locate and arrest a peaceful protester. The case mentioned the Police Act, a list of Operational-Search Activities Act, and Personal Data Protection Act, but the protections around the authorisation and necessity, proportionality and transparency remained unclear.

4.5 Quantitative findings from coding

The coding results show that the Russian sample is strongly shaped by **security and surveillance concerns** rather than by a wide range of AI-policing tools. AI, facial recognition and biometrics appeared in **1 of the 2 documents**, meaning **50%** of the Russian sample directly addressed AI-enabled identification. Predictive policing was absent, which suggests that the available Russian evidence focuses less on crime forecasting and more on identification, monitoring and state security. Policing or security purposes, legal safeguards, identified risks, accountability, human rights and national security framing appeared in **2 of 2 documents**, or **100%** of the sample. However, this must be interpreted critically. The presence of “legal safeguards” and “accountability” does not necessarily mean that protection is strong in practice. The absence of human oversight and transparency, both coded **0/2**, indicates a major weakness (Della Giustina and Carabellese, 2024). Overall, the Russian documents present AI-related policing as security-driven, legally framed, but weakly transparent.

4.6 Summary

All in all, the Russian results imply that AI-police can be viewed not as a governance issue based on rights but as a means of security and surveillance. There was a positive coding of both

Russian documents towards the purpose of policing/security, risk, accountability, human rights and national security frame, and neither of the Russian documents had a clear frame of transparency and accountability. Glukhin is thus essential as it displays how facial recognition is being employed to prosecute and arrest a peaceful protester. The results are however, only indicative and not conclusive at this point, given that there are only 2 Russian documents.

Chapter 5: British Policing and AI Themes

5.1 Introduction

Eight UK documents are analysed in this chapter, and this makes it appear as the stronger side of the dataset as compared to the two Russian documents. The UK sample is more extensive since it comprises four statutes, one police operational policy, one surveillance code, one national AI strategy and one leading case. Coding data reveals that UK documents rated highly on legal safeguards, accountability and human rights all seem to be found in 8/8 documents. Nonetheless, statistical indicators of AI-police interventions are more confined, with the primary focus on the facial recognition that works in real-time.

5.2 Overview of British AI-policing context

The comparison of eight documents in the UK may indicate that the vision of the British AI-policing can be perceived within a relatively formal legal and regulatory framework, though not an entirely established one. Legal safeguards, accountability and human rights emerged as the strongest themes with 8/8 and 6/8 UK documents, respectively. Safety under the law, accountability and human rights appeared as strong themes 8/8 and 6/8 in UK documents, respectively. This implies that the apparent focus of UK AI-policing discourse would be legality and proportionality, data protection and public justification. But the coding reveals that explicit AI is actually regulated only indirectly through data, surveillance and rights law (where it represents 3/8 of the documents and 2/8 of the identified frames). The strongest evidence of law-enforcement data processing is provided by the Data Protection Act 2018, and AI guidance in relation to the wider scope of the public sector is offered by the National AI Strategy.

5.3 Main AI Technologies Identified

One of the major AI technologies found in the sample of UK documents is live facial recognition, which directly appears in 2 of the 8 UK documents, the MPS Live Facial Recognition Policy and the case of Bridges. Though this constitutes only 25 per cent of the sample in the UK, this is the most operationally significant technology since it uses real-time biometric identification in a socially intuitive manner. Controlled policing tool Live facial recognition is presented in the MPS policy, but is linked to watchlists, authorised deployments, proportionality testing, data management, managing governance, and transparency to the populace (Davydenko et al., 2025). Nevertheless, this official configuration does not eliminate the dangers related to automated identification, especially in situations where members of the general population are scanned without any personal suspicion. This is a crucial issue that the

Bridges case reinforces since the case demonstrates that facial recognition can bring up serious concerns regarding Article 8 privacy, data protection and equality obligations. The concept of predictive policing was not well recognized in the coded UK documents, and therefore, as a literature topic, it cannot be described as a significant discovery.

5.4 Legal and Policy Safeguards

The documents of the UK indicate that there is a rather robust formal safeguard framework of AI-related policing, especially in the areas of data protection, human rights, equality, surveillance governance and operational accountability. In the coding analysis, legal safeguards were found in 8 out of 8 UK documents in legal control, whereas accountability and human rights also appeared in 8 out of 8, indicating that legal control is heavily framed in governance in the AI-police court. Transparency was observed in 6 out of 8 documents, and human oversight was seen in 5 out of 8, safeguards are implemented, but not in all sources developed equally.

The key point is that, under the Human Rights Act of 1998, the privacy and proportionality criteria must be applied to any police use of any intrusion technology. Another important law is the Equality Act 2010, since facial recognition can replicate bias where the character of the character being considered is not taken into account. The Protection of Freedoms Act 2012 supplements the framework and regulates the biometric material and use of surveillance cameras.

5.5 Quantitative findings from coding

The coding outcomes suggest that the UK documents portray AI policing not based on technological progress, but through legal control. The explicit use of AI only occurs in 3 out of 8 documents, with facial recognition being only implicit in 2 out of 8, indicating that live facial recognition is clearly the most transparent AI-policing technology in the sample. But, legal protection, accountability and human rights are found in 8 of 8 documents, indicating a very rights-based documentary model (Georgiou, 2025). This is not necessarily an indication of good protection in action. The existence of transparency in 6 of 8, and the presence of human oversight in 5 of 8 are positive progress, but they also reveal those areas where safeguards are still disproportionately embedded.

5.6 Summary

As a whole, the UK sources introduce AI policing as potentially, but not necessarily, legitimate. The results of the coding's indicate legal safeguards, accountability and human rights in 8/8 UK documents, and transparency appears in 6/8, and human oversight in 5/8. This implies a relatively developed set of live facial recognition, data protection and proportionality. Nevertheless, Bridges shows that, in the context where police discretion is wide, equality is not sufficiently evaluated, or the analysis of data protection becomes procedural rather than substantive.

Chapter 6: Critical Comparative Discussion

6.1 Introduction

This chapter critically makes a comparison of the findings that have been generated in the UK and Russia through the process of coding analysis. It is compared with ten papers (eight of them are UK-based and two are Russian-based). This disproportion in the sample implies that the results may not be considered completely balanced and reflective of the entire population. However, there are comparative indicators that are useful for the results of the coding. This analysis focuses on the conversation on how both jurisdictions frame AI policing, facial recognition, safeguards, transparency, accountability and human rights, as well as acknowledging that the UK dataset is richer in documentary content.

6.2 Comparison of AI Technologies

The analysis of the documents demonstrates that the most noticeable and practically meaningful AI-policing technology in both jurisdictions is facial recognition. Facial recognition is seen in 2-8 UK documents and 1- 2 Russian documents, in the coded sample. Despite its apparent numerical insignificance, it is analytically significant as the documents in which it appears are some of the most directly relevant to police practice: the UK MPS Overt Live Facial Recognition Policy and Bridges judgment, and the Russian Glukhin v Russia judgment. It is argued that it is not predictive policing underlying police practice in Britain and Russia, but rather facial recognition that offers the most optimal basis to compare AI and the practice of police in Britain and Russia.

In the UK documents, facial recognition is framed as a controlled use of policing, both linked to watchlists, authorisation, proportionality, transparency and deployment governance. The MPS policy tries to operationalise the technology with particular use cases, such as the location of wanted persons or assisting policing in high-risk locations.

Facial recognition is more imperatively demonstrated in the Russian sample. In the show, Glukhin demonstrates how the technology was used to spot, find and arrest a peaceful demonstrator, a fact that raises concerns on biometric surveillance, political expression and chilling effects. This provides the Russian evidence with an increased rights-risk nature despite the smaller sample.

In both files uploaded, predictive policing is not found. Thus, it cannot be considered a discovery during the analysis of documents (Ross et al., 2024). It can be mentioned in the

literature review, although the actual comparison is to be made in terms of such aspects as facial recognition, biometrics and surveillance infrastructure.

6.3 Comparison of Policing Purposes

Analysis indicates that AI and surveillance technologies are related to policing/security in both jurisdictions, although a very different framing is involved. 7/8 documents in the UK sample linked technology with policing, the security of people and places, surveillance or official regulation. The best example is the Metropolitan Police's live facial recognition policy, which introduces facial recognition as a focused approach towards locating wanted persons, policing hotspots in crime environments, supporting protective security operations and responding to intelligence. It indicates that the UK policing documents aim to justify the use of AI by the need to operate and by the need to have controlled conditions of deployment of AI.

The Russian sample contained 2 out of 2 documents that associated technology with policing or security, but on a more broad-based and state-centred orientation. The Russian Information Security Doctrine views the idea of technology through the lens of national security, sovereignty, the public order and protection against information threats. *Glukhin v Russia* demonstrates that facial recognition was employed to identify, locate and arrest during a protest-related issue.

6.4 Comparison of Legal Safeguards

The differences in the quality and the practical clarity of the legal safeguards can be noted as the comparative legal protection measures in the UK and Russia system differ dramatically. Legal safeguards were found in the document analysis with 8/8 UK documents, indicating 100% of the UK sample. It was also found in 2/2 Russian documents, and 100 per cent of the Russian sample. It must not be understood based on this numerical similarity as legal equality. The coding does not denote the level of detail, enforceability or operational effectiveness, but merely points to the presence of the safeguards.

The UK written reports demonstrate a more enhanced protection framework. The following issues can be found at a number of various levels of law and policy: data protection, human rights, equality law, surveillance-camera regulation and police policy. This establishes a more noticeable system surrounding police utilization of AI-based technologies, particularly live facial recognition. Proportionality, lawful basis, data management, watchlist control, transparency, authorisation and accountability are given a higher priority in the UK material. The Metropolitan Police's live facial recognition policy is, on the one hand, especially crucial

by being able to turn the legal obligations into operational procedures, including the deployment terms, the authorising officer and disclosure specifications.

Legal protection also includes the Russian documents; however, they are more generic and security-oriented. The Russian Information Security Doctrine is defined as constitutional rights and legal information government, but its most frequent way of framing the concept is as national security, state sovereignty and protection of state information infrastructure. In the case of *Glukhin v Russia*, the protective measures are in the form of subsequent judicial objections rather than of decisive measures of effective operational control before use of facial recognition.

Thus, the difference made is not whether safeguards exist but the operation of the safeguards. The UK model is more procedure and rights-based, but yet again flawed. The Russian model seems the more state-security minded, and there is less evidence of transparency, prior authorisation and practical human-rights protection in the Russian model. This implies that the legal safeguards should be evaluated based on their precision, visibility and enforceability and not based on their mere formal existence.

6.5 Accountability and Transparency

One of the most evident areas of contrast between the British and Russian document examples is accountability and transparency. The results of the coding indicate that the concept of transparency is present in 6/8 of all UK documents, which is equivalent to 75. This implies that British AI-policing governmentality is better viewed in terms of its more visible formatting around the notion of public justification, legal challenge, regulatory oversight and operational review. The MPS Live Facial Recognition Policy is especially valuable because it does not just consider transparency as a general principle. It encompasses the information exposure, deploying notices, reporting responsibility and the process of governance.

But that does not imply that the UK framework has no flaws. The high score in accountability suggests that there are formal mechanisms in place, yet the case of the Bridges demonstrates that there exist formal mechanisms in place, but the problem is that these mechanisms may take effect only after a controversial deployment has already taken place. Thus, the British accountability can be accentuated as part of being reactive, though more noticeable and organised compared to the Russian sample.

The pattern exhibited by the Russian documents is different. In 0 out of 2 Russian documents, transparency appears, and in 2 out of 2 documents, accountability can be found. This implies that there exists a legal or judicial apparatus, but those that are open to the public regarding the action of facial recognition are much less evident. The case of *Glukhin v Russia* is particularly noteworthy as accountability was very minimal before the event took place through human-rights litigation and not through clear prior notification, transparency in the deployment rules or easy access to oversight at the moment of police use.

In general, the comparison indicates that the UK documents contain transparency as a part of the legal practice of AI-policing, whereas the Russian documents reveal more concerns with the lack of transparency, surveillance and delayed accountability. This contributes to the fact that transparency is one of the key lines of division between two policing settings.

6.6 Risks and Ethical Concerns

As can be seen in the analysis, risk is a significant theme in both jurisdictions, though it manifests itself in each situation in a different way. A UK sample established that British AI-police governance afforded observable focus to privacy, equality, proportionality, data protection and biometric regulation in 6 out of 8 documents. This, however, may not be taken to imply that the UK framework is wholly protective. Risk language can indicate that the regulator is risk-aware, but they do not necessarily mean that in practice, police deployment is fair, transparent or proportionate.

Among the Russian sample, risks were presented in 2 out of 2 documents, but the ethical focus was more politically sensitive and sharp. As evident in the *Glukhin* case, facial recognition is instantiated together with surveillance, protest policing, biometric identification and arrest. Of particular interest is that the system of surveillance in Moscow is said to be growing to as many as 175,000 CCTV cameras handling live facial recognition by 2020. The scale presents a risk where facial recognition reaches an area beyond targeted policing, to an area of monitoring the whole population.

More importantly, Russian material ties AI policing to privacy as well as to the freedom of expression and assembly. This complicates the ethical issue of imposing facial recognition on protest or dissent, which can turn away the practice of legal, lawful democracy (Sharma and Sharma, 2024). Thus, the comparative result is that risks in the UK have been framed that are more accentuated by regulatory safeguards, whereas risks in Russia have been framed based on more accentuated surveillance power, political control and chilling effects.

6.7 Critical interpretation

Individual comparative results show that British AI-policing governance is more rights-oriented, procedural and legalistic than the material considered by the Russians. In the analysed dataset, references to legal safeguards, accountability, human rights and transparency featured in 6 and 8 documents respectively, and human oversight was present in 5 and 8 articles respectively. This implies that the British form of governance is constituted on visible procedural government: data protection, equality obligations, proportionality checks, surveillance regulations, operational authorisation and judicial review. This must not, however, be construed to mean that UK AI policing is risk-averse (Della Giustina and Carabellese, 2024). The Bridges case demonstrates that even formal safeguards may not be sufficient in the situation where police discretion is excessive or equality and data-protection checks are lax.

In comparison, the 2 Russian documents indicated a more positive security and sovereignty orientation. In both the Russian documents contained a national-security framing, and the text by Glukhin provided a direct example of rights-critical framing on the use of facial recognition to identify, locate and arrest a peaceful protester.

6.8 Summary

Altogether, it is possible to note convergence of the surveillance, security and biometric identification and divergence of the safeguards. The sample of the UK records better procedural visibility: the reading of transparency is seen in 6/8 documents, human oversight is observed in 5/8 documents, and accountability is evident in 8/8 documents. In contrast, the Russian sample captures national-security framing in 2/2 documents, but transparency and human control in 0/2. This implies that there is British AI-policing literature that pre-empts the existence of regulated deployment, and also Russian materials that indicate the higher risks of opaque use of facial recognition in the context of policing the public order.

Chapter 7: Conclusion

7.1 Restate the research aim

This paper is a critical comparison of the ways in which British and Russian documents construct AI in the international police practice, particularly through facial recognition, surveillance, legal protection, accountability and human rights. The project analysed using the quantitative content analysis technique a total of 8 UK sources and 2 Russian sources based on the examined sample of 10 documents. The objective was not just to find out whether AI is present but also on how each system justifies police technology, their risk management and balancing between security and rights-based protections.

7.2 Answer research question 1

Both the British and Russian documents depict AI in different ways. Within the British sample, AI is manifested primarily as a police enforcement mechanism used under control, in particular, in the form of live face recognition. Though not specified by the 3 out of 8 UK documents specifically address AI, all 8 UK documents do contain legal safeguarding, accountability and human rights themes, demonstrating that British AI policing is framed through the prism of legality, proportionate use and human accountability (Zaimler, 2026). Within the Russian sample, the concept of AI-related policing takes a less regulatory form of operational tool and is rather seen as a form of facial recognition and information security control. The security and right themes are inherent to both pieces of evidence produced by the Russian authorities, yet there was still no transparency or human tracking.

7.3 Answer research question 2

Both jurisdictions introduce AI-related policing as it links to security, the maintenance of social order and biometric identification. The coding indicates policing/security purpose in 7/8 UK documents and 2/2 Russian documents, and facial recognition in both samples. Nonetheless, the distinction is in the quality of governance. In the UK documents, there is stronger formal protection: transparency is found in 6/8, human oversight in 5/8, and accountability in 8/8. In comparison, the Russian records score 0/2 transparency and human control, yet they still have references to legal and human rights. It implies that, in Britain, AI policing is thought to be more procedural and, in Russia, more thought of as provided by security and its control over the state.

7.4 Answer research question 3

The results reveal that both jurisdictions have safeguards, accountability and risk, albeit to varying degrees. Legal safeguards, accountability and human rights were found in 8/8 documents, whereas risks were found in 6/8 ones, which might suggest a more explicit procedural framework. This does not, however, imply that the UK safeguards are automatically effective, but the fact that litigation is required in cases involving facial recognition implies that the safeguards are not as effective as they should be (Filgueiras, 2022). Safeguards, accountability and risks were the most common, as they came in 2/2 documents, but the least common were transparency and human accountability (0/2). This implies that there are greater risks on security led model where the risks are obvious, yet operational safeguard is undeveloped.

7.5 Contribution of the study

The study is significant as it demonstrates that AI policing cannot be gauged by finding out whether technology is involved. Its worth is in its comparison of the writing, operationalisation and tension of safeguards between documents. The 10 document analysis demonstrates that legal safeguards and accountability are not only evident in all UK documents and both documents in Russia, but also that there has been a qualitative gap behind the figures.

7.6 Limitations

The main limitation of this study is that the analysis of its coding relies on eight UK documents and on only two Russian documents, which grounds the findings of the analysis of its coding in eight UK documents rather than two Russian documents. The imbalance of this prevents the strength of direct comparison, especially in the practice of policing operational practices by Russians. The use of language and translation can also pose problems in understanding Russian legal text. Also, binary coding records the presence or absence of safeguards, but not their efficacy, enforceability or habitual use in real policing situations within modern AI systems.

7.7 Recommendations for future research

The imbalance in the current dataset (UK documents 8 of 10 documents analysed; and Russian documents 2 only) should be addressed in future research. This restricts the power of direct analogy, especially regarding the practice of Russian police, biometric control and AI control. Reliability would be enhanced by a more detailed sample of Russian police laws, operational guidelines and biometric policies. Interviews with police officials, civil society actors like

regulators and how the written safeguards are working in practice, could also be tested in further research.

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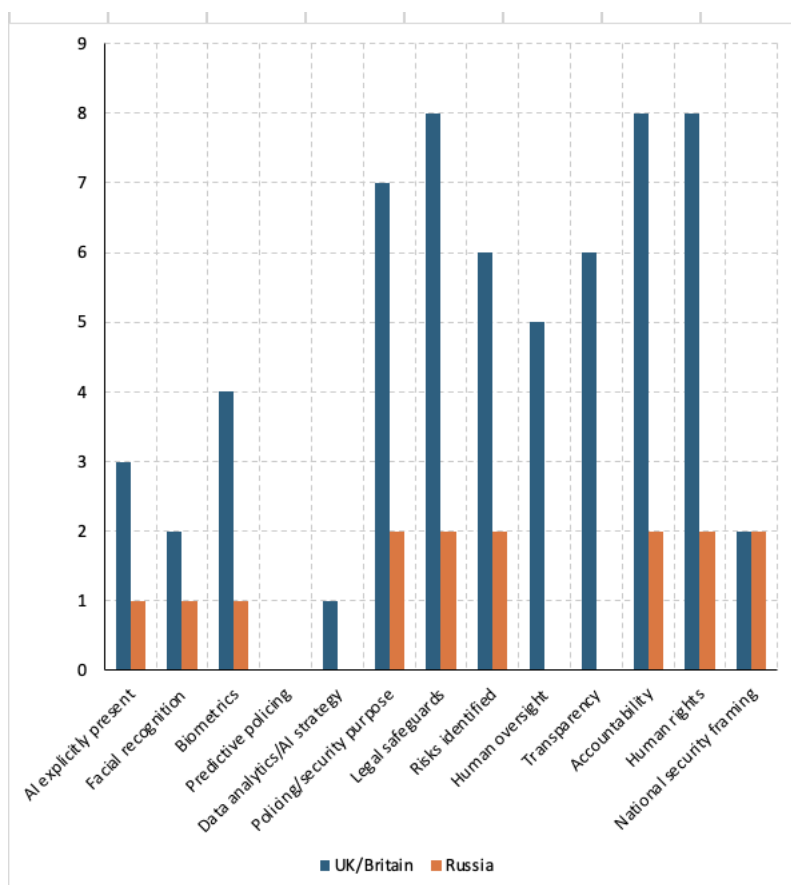
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Appendix

Theme	UK count	UK %	Russia count	Russia %
AI explicitly present	3	38%	1	50%
Facial recognition	2	25%	1	50%
Biometrics	4	50%	1	50%
Predictive policing	0	0%	0	0%
Data analytics/AI strategy	1	13%	0	0%
Policing/security purpose	7	88%	2	100%
Legal safeguards	8	100%	2	100%
Risks identified	6	75%	2	100%
Human oversight	5	63%	0	0%
Transparency	6	75%	0	0%
Accountability	8	100%	2	100%
Human rights	8	100%	2	100%
National security framing	2	25%	2	100%



Critical interpretation notes				
1 2 3 4		The uploaded sample is UK-heavy (8 UK documents; 2 Russian documents). Use percentages cautiously.		
		The UK documents contain more formal legal and operational safeguards, especially in the MPS LFR policy and Bridges case.		
		security framing and a rights-critical case study in Glukhin, but more Russian legal/policy		
		A score measures whether a theme appears, not whether the safeguard is effective in practice.		
		Use Coding_Data in the appendix; use Theme_Summary and Dashboard in Chapters 4–6.		

Recommended dissertation use

